

9 National paradigms of migration research (with Dietrich Thränhardt)

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Migrations are an inherent part of current processes of globalisation and internationalisation, which undoubtedly provide the foundation for the increasing call for more international and comparative research. Accordingly, the number of international research projects and networks in the research area of migration has grown considerably over the last two decades.¹ Scholars participating in this endeavour, however, soon discover that the academic modes of conceptualising, defining and recording problems depend to a large extent on the respective national histories of science. This applies particularly to academic research into international migration and the ensuing problems in the regions where migration begins and ends. Research questions and approaches are frequently designed along the lines of national traditions and patterns of state reactions towards international migration and its societal effects. Seen in this way, migration research seems itself to be rather a part of the complex of problems that it claims to describe and explain. This context dependency certainly becomes more visible in international research projects, since here researchers are more often compelled to explicate their preconceptions.

Systematically, this leads to a number of questions: To what extent and how is migration research shaped by 'national paradigms' or 'hidden national agendas' like 'race relations' in the UK, 'ethnic minority policies' in the Netherlands, 'assimilation into a French citizenry' in France or 'integration into a welfare state' in Germany? These paradigms are perhaps even present in critical efforts of scholars who strive to overcome their

very boundaries.² How do these national patterns influence the way in which international research and scientific modes conceptualise their research questions? What are the consequences of this for the claim of scientific validity with regard to propositions and applied theories? These questions have hardly been addressed systematically in migration studies (Lavenex 2005; Vasta and Vasoo 2006) yet their investigation is an essential precondition for adequately reflexive international research.

The assumption that research may be imbued with 'national paradigms' is intentionally constructed in a paradoxical manner. Put in this way, we focus on one characteristic of the field of research, i.e. the indexing of the paradigms of migration research as 'national'. This may refer, on the one hand, to a quite unproblematic matter of fact: Migration research takes on different national shapes, since migration and the resulting societal constellations differ in each country. As a consequence, different research questions need to be asked, and correspondingly, different theories and methodological approaches need to be applied. Seen in this way, the heterogeneous appearance of migration research and concomitant problems of mutual understanding may be simply the result of a lack of sufficient joint explication and translation of approaches as well as their implicit context dependency. This would, however, not principally foreclose scientific claims of generalisability made by propositions on the basis of theories and methodologies applied in nationally confined migration research. It seems that the apparent paradox can be rectified easily and that it concerns a rather unproblematic case: Internationalisation of research would simply imply that nationally established approaches in migration research become more explicit about their generalisability claims and enable a process in which these claims are tested in an extended context of research, involving comparative research designs and competition among alternative scientific approaches. This will certainly be linked with the failure of research approaches and theories, i.e. we would just observe the normal and unspectacular course of science not really worth specific mentioning.

However, we approach the issue of 'national research paradigms' inspired by a more far-ranging assumption: The paradigms of migration research are 'national paradigms' not just because of their context dependency and insufficient clarification of the conditions of generalisability; they are 'national' because the modes of presenting problems and questions are politically constituted by the nation states for which migration becomes a problem or a challenge. This assumption finds initial evidence in the fact that migration research is usually perceived as part of the applied social sciences: This type of research emerged as a response to 'social problems' with the claim of contributing to their solution. This holds true for early American sociology, whose first chair was established in Chicago at the end of the nineteenth century, linked with the political expectation that it would generate useful practical knowledge able to contribute to the

practical solution of those social problems stemming from immigration.³ This similarly applies to Australia (Vasta 2006) and to migration research in different European countries since the Second World War (Vuddamalay and Withol de Wenden 2006; Scholten 2007; Favell 2001; 2005; Boswell 2009). These practical conditions during the emergence of migration research do not necessarily prove that its different traditions create 'national paradigms' in the political sense introduced above, since no initial condition determines the structure of research programmes.

We take this point only as a first indicator for the validity of our assumption, and it turns out that it is easy to find others: 1) Up to the present, migration researchers tend to be rather 'committed' and less 'distanced' researchers.⁴ In many countries, they play a major role in conceptualising migration and integration policies, either directly or as government advisors. Much research is embedded in such activities, and 'policy relevance' is seen as an important criterion for migration research. 2) During the last decades, migration research has gained prominence in the relevant disciplines⁵, although it did not contribute significantly to the theoretical or methodological progress of these disciplines. Central and paradigmatically relevant theoretical and methodological debates in the various disciplines have influenced migration research only to a minor extent and vice versa: the findings of migration research had and still have a rather low impact on these (sub-) disciplines. The general (political) consensus about the societal relevance of international migration – linked with the willingness to provide more resources for research – has created a climate of reputation and recognition for migration research, which is not substantiated by scientific achievement. Research may be confronted with increasing expectations, but the research questions and answers as well as research approaches remain largely the same – certainly permitting differences in scientific preferences mainly dependent on the orientations of the researchers.

Against this backdrop, we suspect that the paradigms of migration research are national in the sense that they are hybrids resulting from the handling and redesign of politically constituted problems by means of scientific research. We want to clarify if and to what extent the tension between the national constitution of the migration problem and its scientific treatment affects the scientific claim of universality. Do aspects external to science penetrate the internal conceptualisation of problems, theory building and research design in migration research in a way that leads to the emergence of 'national paradigms' of migration research?

In order to answer these questions, we need to clarify first to what extent the problem of migration is constituted by the organisational form of the nation state, and how different nation states frame the specific modes of raising problems, which in turn define the subject of research (I). Second, we discuss how the relation between practical relevance and scientific

claim, between 'commitment and distance' (Elias 1956), is moderated in migration research, and what kind of 'national paradigms' emerge out of this process. *The challenge is to identify the relation between politics/policies and science in different traditions of migration research. We assume that in each case a specific relation of mutual enablement and restriction provides the ground for different national paradigms* (II). Finally, we discuss to what extent these paradigms and their foundations remain relevant for the more and more internationally and comparatively oriented migration research.

Nation States as Constitutive Frame for the Problem of International Migration

In all nation states, international migration and migrants become periodically a political issue, yet in varying ways and with a focus on different topics. Therefore, an analytical framework of analysis is required that allows us to account for commonalities and differences between nation states in dealing with international migration (1). Based on this framework, we provide some arguments for the assumption that nation states conceptualise international migration based on their structural constitution (2). In a third step, we discuss the extent to which these conceptualisations are mirrored in the different national traditions of migration research (3).

1

Migration is usually defined as the movement across borders, from one nation state to another – or from one society to another (Treibel 1990, 21). In contrast, internal migration is evidently considered as normal, unproblematic or even functional and necessary, strengthening national cohesion and opening access to locations where people can work and live most effectively and satisfyingly – the practical realisation of Adam Smith's idea of the invisible hand. In other words, internal migration in national labour markets is not only seen as normal, it also refers to the socially institutionalised expectation of social mobility. Internal migrants are therefore neither perceived nor treated as migrants. Instead, the emergence of conflicts about internal migrations usually indicates that a nation state is in crisis, that processes of political erosion articulate themselves in increasing desires to split up and create new states – be it a most imaginative 'Padania' in the north of Italy, an independent Assam in the northeast of India, an independent Kurdistan cutting across Turkey, Syria and Iran, or a Kosovo free of Serbian domination.

The field of migration research dealing with international migration is therefore over-determined by a contradiction, which has been prominently labelled 'the liberal paradox' (Hollifield 1996): One central assumption of

liberalism is that the freedom of movement of people as well as of goods, capital and services refers not only to a natural right but also provides the basis for the smooth operation of society. Restrictions upon such freedoms are associated with authoritarian governments – pre-modern, colonial, fascist or communist – and are seen as dysfunctional for a modern, i.e. open, economy. On the other hand, national sovereignty, including the right to control access to state territory, remains largely unquestioned. This is taken as a basic principle of international and national law, only slightly modified by the non-refoulement clause of the Geneva Convention. Communitarian philosophers have reaffirmed this position as a legitimate right of closure, based on the operational mode of communities and the requirements for societal cohesion (Taylor 1993; Walzer 1983; 1990).

Only a small minority of political theorists takes a principled stance against the territorial sovereignty of states (Bauböck 1994). On the whole, however, idealist hopes for a borderless world (Soysal 1994; Jacobson 1996) have faded away since the fall of the Berlin wall. Inside the European Union, the liberal paradox seems to be solved: The freedom of movement is largely institutionalised, and despite the recurrent fears accompanying each enlargement round, no serious social tensions have arisen so far. The liberal paradox re-emerges, however, at the external frontier of the EU, and new member states situated at this border have to prove their maturity for full membership by implementing Schengen conditions and by establishing border control capacities according to EU standards.

In more general terms, 'the liberal paradox' refers to a structural contradiction of modern world society: On the one hand, international migration is an outcome of the social expectation involved in the institutionalised form of mobility in modern world society, i.e. individuals are expected to move where relevant social chances for participation and resources for an autonomous life are available. International migration means precisely the effort to realise opportunities for a living by means of geographical mobility. This does not per se imply structural problems for the primarily affected social systems, like labour markets, education systems or families – the freedom to move may be rather a precondition for their functioning, as liberals argue.⁶ Nevertheless, most international migrations are, on the other hand, confronted with all kinds of legal and political interventions and restrictions.

The structural basis for these regular interventions is the organisational form of politics in modern society, i.e. the nation state. Political and legal interventions in international migration occur regularly and not just by historical chance. They make manifest the internal structural contradiction of world society (Stichweh 1998), i.e. the permanent production of motives for international migration – due mainly to the demand of labour markets and the opportunities of educational systems, the institutionalisation of the nuclear family, the worldwide communication of options by the mass

media and the accessibility of transport (just to name the most important factors) – and the constant political effort to control these migrations⁷ and to mould motives for migration, according to the specific structure of the political system, i.e. its internal segmentary differentiation into nation states.

One strong implication of the worldwide institutionalisation of national states has been the partitioning of the world population into state populations (Halfmann 2005). International migrations have always challenged this division by crossing borders in the quest for chances of social participation. The reactions of nation states towards these migrations are mediated by the two constitutive dimensions that define the relation between states and their populations: a) the dimension of *loyalty* refers to the requirement that citizens and all other persons residing in a nation state territory show obedience and participate in political decisions; it is therefore a fundamental condition for the reproduction of state sovereignty; b) the dimension of *provision* refers to the obligation of the state to provide legal, political and social security in exchange for loyalty coagulating in the concept of the welfare state (Marshall 1950).⁸ Nearly all political modes of regulating international migration are geared towards aspects linked to one or both of these *dimensions* – *loyalty and provision* (Bommes 1999).⁹ These two dimensions are deeply interlinked. States shape their take on migration on the ground of patterns based on the conceptualisation of the population as citizens resulting from historical state building processes: How the population is constituted as a national community of citizens and the related design of the welfare state define the common ground for all kinds of political reactions to be found in states dealing with migration. They are, however, differently articulated due to the different course of state building based on different dynamics in the emergence of the state population and the building up of welfare systems.

One major difference between European nation states and the traditional immigration countries (USA, Canada, Australia) has always been the building process of state populations and the related concept of *loyalty*: European state populations are the historical outcome of the efforts of emerging states to establish sovereignty over a territory and a people against competing claims of neighbouring states (Tilly 1990). Nation building in Europe took place as a process by which a population was delineated and transformed into a nation, a people within a politically defined territory (Koselleck 1992). This outlines the historical background for the varying concepts and meanings of civic community as ‘the people’ (Brubaker 1992) and the specific relevance of the loyalty dimension in dealing with migrants in Europe (Bade 2003). In contrast, in traditional immigration countries immigration has been an integral part of the population building process by conceptualising immigrants, in principle, as future

citizens – despite the exclusion of certain migrants for a long time on racist grounds.

The different histories of state building also provide the background for the different meaning of the *welfare dimension* in Europe and in traditional immigration countries in dealing with migration. The emerging modern states in Europe sought to politically mediate the chances of inclusion and exclusion in reaction to the breakdown of pre-modern stratified orders of inclusion (Bommes 1999). The modern nation state can most generally be defined by its successful claim of sovereignty over a territory and a population. From the outset, this was linked to the emergence of the welfare state (Swaan 1988). By providing chances for participation in the social realms of the economy, law, health or education – that is within a welfare state – the nation state created the social preconditions for a process in which former subjects were transformed into political citizens. This was a process in which the inclusion of the whole population into the political system via the individual citizens and the claim of political sovereignty over them could gain political legitimacy and universal validity. The welfare state became the central authority in modern society moderating relations between the principle of universal access¹⁰ to and inclusion in the social realms of the economy, law, education, health or politics and the empirical reality of social exclusion.

The effect was that national welfare states became the institutionalised organisational model of the political system in world society, and they have evolved as international ‘thresholds of inequality’ (Stichweh 1998). This means that they have guaranteed the *internal loyalty* of their citizens by a welfare policy that promotes chances for inclusion based on *external closure and exclusion*. From its beginning, welfare provided by nation states had a territorial index. The provisions of welfare states initially addressed primarily citizens, i.e. those individuals perceived by states as belonging to their territory. The nation may have been defined in either cultural (e.g., Germany) or republican terms (e.g., France), but in the historical context of competitive state building processes in Europe, the common welfare of the people of the nation – of the community of national citizens – evolved as the general frame of reference for states (Bommes 1999). This involved the political claim for not only formal, but also some substantial equality for all members of the national community; a claim based on the political form of membership, i.e. citizenship (Marshall 1950).

This European model of the national welfare state gained worldwide relevance (Meyer et al. 1997),¹¹ although in different ways. Again, for our purpose, one major difference between European welfare states and the traditional immigration countries is telling: Welfare in Europe implies a more or less thick notion of ‘the people’ as the original political collective that defines the addressee of welfare; correspondingly, migrants are seen as potentially illegitimate welfare seekers from outside. In contrast, immigration

countries conceptualise and recruit immigrants traditionally as potential contributors to welfare – not because these countries do not provide welfare in a privileging manner, addressing primarily citizens, but because immigrants are right from the start expected to become future citizens. In other words, the production of welfare has always been based on immigration, whereas welfare in Europe is still to a large extent perceived as a ‘(gross) national product’ leaving the contribution of outsiders, i.e. migrants, with only limited acknowledgement.¹²

Despite these differences, in a most general sense, all national welfare states try to privilege their citizens (or what they consider to be their core citizens). They try

- to open or facilitate access to the relevant social systems (the economy, law, education, family or health) and to reduce the risks of exclusion;
- to stabilise these systems and their capacities of inclusion (labour markets, families, education, health, etc.);
- to equip individuals so that they fulfil the conditions for social participation;
- to compensate for the social consequences of failing access.

In order to achieve these objectives, states rely fundamentally on law as a means of assigning rights and duties, of the political distribution and redistribution of funds and the symbolic communication of civic duties. These state efforts lead to highly differentiated welfare infrastructures encompassing social security systems, which deal with the modern core risks of accident, health, age and unemployment, with social benefits for families, programmes to increase access to education, social benefit payments for the long-term excluded and poor, various public provisions of social services, etc.

National welfare states differ tremendously, even in Europe, and it seems that this will also remain the case in the near future, despite the advancement of globalisation and European integration and some, although limited, processes of model mixing and assimilation (Obinger et al. 2006). These differences are a result of the varied histories of national state building. Welfare structures are the outcome of the accumulated political decisions in history; they mould welfare in nationally specific ways with regard to concepts of social cohesion, the size and qualities of a constituency, legitimate membership and access to rights as well as notions of social risks and failure, and expectations of mutual obligations constituted by solidarity, which define we-collectives of insiders and complementary outsiders. Different welfare states represent therefore different welfare cultures, i.e. bundles of organisations, regulations and institutions referred to as welfare states are culturally deeply imbued. Conceptions of security and insecurity, assumptions about responsibilities for the provision of welfare, the limits of welfare and the extent of individual self-responsibility are contingent

and not self-evident. There are always alternative ways, and it is certainly – at least in principle – possible to organise welfare differently. Each welfare state is based on different assumptions about what states should do, and to what extent they should intervene, about the meaning and foundations of freedom or solidarity, about the main institutions and foundations of society, etc.¹³

2

These considerations on the relation of national welfare states and international migration provide an adequately generalised model in order to account for the different modes in which international, i.e. trans-border, migrations are conceptualised as political issues and handled by states. By adequately generalised, we mean that this model should allow further case-dependent respecifications, e.g. to account for differences between large and small welfare states, the formation problems of new nations in Asia and Africa, the transition of countries, like Turkey, from traditional emigration countries to transit and immigration countries. We assume that these political modes of conceptualising migration resurface in the paradigms of migration research, mirroring country specific constellations. In the following, we summarise the assumptions of this model:

A commonality of different states is defined by the need to solve a bundle of problems, in order to build and maintain a capacity for the production of collectively binding decisions. Essentially, this includes the enforcement of the claim of sovereignty over a territory and its population, i.e. the people. This implies, as elaborated above, the two dimensions of loyalty and provision: What kind of loyalty is expected from whom, and who is suspected to be disloyal (e.g. autochthonous minorities, migrants coming from competing neighbouring states)? Who should be included in civil, political and social provisions, and who should be excluded? What kind of civil, political and social provisions are institutionalised, and how are they related to internal historical conflict constellations and cleavages? Dependent on the historical handling of these constellations by states, international migrants denote groups that stand in many respects in stark contrast to the different demarcations and delineations resulting from state building processes:

A. The relation between international migrants and the group of citizens is precarious. Dependent on how delineations are defined, the conditions for the inclusion of migrants are more or less open or restrictive, linked with expectations concerning cultural similarity, the willingness of acculturation, assimilation and loyalty. These expectations are anchored in notions of the hereditary or acquirable character of cultural patterns, paradigmatically articulated in the opposition of republican and ethnic concepts of citizenship.¹⁴ These distinctions prove to be relevant not only in Europe, but also for migrations in the successor states of the

Soviet empire or the postcolonial states of the former Third World. Additional complications face those postcolonial migrants in Europe for whom national citizenships had been open (like in Great Britain, the Netherlands, France and more recently in Spain and Portugal). After closure, however, their social position has been redefined in most of these countries in terms of ethnic or race relations.

- B. Notions of (potential) belonging organise not only the formal rules of access to welfare provision, which may include or exclude different migrants to a different extent, but also the social perceptions of the legitimacy to claim benefits and the chance to scandalise it publicly.
- C. In different national welfare states, migrants acquire differentiated access to social rights and provisions. This depends on the different mode of construction of welfare states; and fairly often, it is removed from the question of whether this access is politically perceived as legitimate: It can be the long-term outcome of participation in the labour market of welfare states which make access to social rights dependent on employment; it can be the effect of welfare provisions that address the legally resident population living in the state territory.
- D. Migrations become a political issue in different ways depending on the internal order and infrastructure of states: in countries with majority voting systems differently from countries with systems of proportional representation; in centralistic systems differently from federalist systems; in democracies differently from dictatorships, etc. That is to say, the forms and dynamics of the reproduction of state power are relevant for the question of if and how migrants become an issue under the perspectives of loyalty and provision.

If one regards this approach as an underlying framework of reference, one can immediately notice that international migration and migrants assume the form of specific problems in different countries, which depend on the design of these states, their internal way of reproducing sovereignty, and the related conceptualisation of loyalty and power relations. This explains the difference between immigration countries and those countries in Europe that conceive of their form of political organisation by dint of founding myths as the constitution of native populations on ancestral territory. We have already discussed that this leads in each case to different conceptualisations of migrants in their relation to the state population as well as to welfare.

Nevertheless, the 'multiculturalisms' of the immigration countries Canada, USA and Australia differ substantially from one another: In Canada, multiculturalism has served since the 1960s as a sort of moderator for the latent tensions between the two founding nations, while at the same time it commits immigrants to this constellation. In Australia, it can be traced back to a changed international situation in which the country

repositioned itself politically in the Pacific region under the motto 'populate or perish', by opening itself to immigration from Asia since the late 1960s. Australia linked this development with a 're-description' of its state population. As in the United States, this was accompanied by recurring fears, whether on the basis of plural origins living together harmoniously, immigrants can turn into loyal citizens or, vice versa, whether the foundation of the state, a certain degree of uniformity and coherence among its inhabitants, is at risk. On the basis of the highly selective admission of immigrants, these countries also differ with regard to the access immigrants have to welfare benefits. However, especially their selectivity reduces the likelihood that such benefits are claimed. It is, therefore, hardly accidental that, particularly in the US, public debates arise regularly on the issue of the exclusion from such benefits – yet, these concern in particular illegal immigrants before the backdrop of an economic situation in which the extended employment of such immigrants in certain sectors of the labour market and the continued demand for them are hardly hot topics. This leads to hypocrisy in public scandalisation and the establishing of harsh control and defence apparatus, in particular along the border with Mexico, while the immigration and employment of such migrants continue (Cornelius et al. 2009).

In Europe, despite processes of adjustment during the last 15 years, differences between the states remain, be it between cultural and political concepts of nations (*Kulturnation* vs. *Staatsnation*), between republican and multicultural-pluralistically oriented policies, or with regard to the constitution of their welfare states. This finds expression in the conceptualisations of migrants in relation to state populations and in the variations of what, unlike in the United States, is in most European countries purposefully taken as the 'integration' and not as the 'assimilation problem' of migrants. In France, for instance, republicanism turns out to be a quasi-lens through which all immigrant-related issues are seen, be it the issue of access to citizenship, which as a matter of course is open to migrants conceived as immigrants based on the recognition of the republican order and the assimilatively oriented expectation to become French, the shaping of the inclusion of migrants in the educational system, or the handling of cultural and religious pluralisation. This has the mirror effect that immigrants perceive their actual social marginalisation as withholding the republican promise to be part of the French nation.

In the Netherlands the conceptualisation of immigrants as ethnic minorities was, since the 1970s, based on the pillar model anchored in the specific Dutch state building. Until the 1990s, the corresponding direction of welfare state integration policies allowed the combining of post-colonial immigration and recruited labour migration in a historically proven model. The resulting tension between political, multicultural tolerance and the de facto marginalisation of large sections of the immigrant population in the

labour market and in cities under well-developed welfare-state conditions initiated the continuous and increasingly restrictive transformation of migration and integration policies, associated with both increasingly aggressive, publicly expressed expectations of migrants to assimilate and considerable turbulence in the political party system. In Denmark, immigration and its consequences run counter to the country's self-image as a culturally and socially completely homogeneous nation.

In the British case, the conceptualisation of the immigration issue as 'race relations' shapes the public debate, which has its basis in the immigration of 'former subjects' of the British Crown from the 1950s to the 1970s. Migration and opportunities for social participation of migrants are primarily conceptualised as problems of the equitable cohabitation of 'races', of multicultural tolerance and anti-discrimination, which are meant to domestically signal acceptance and equality towards immigrants, given the closure of the British state for their home countries and for former subjects of the Commonwealth in general. Historically rooted in the history of the Empire, this conceptualisation is currently being 'overwritten' by a new wave of immigration after the EU enlargement. According to the priorities of New Labour, it is being replaced by a new interest in 'indicators of social integration' regarding immigrants from Eastern Europe, also in view of the increasingly apparent limits of the absorption capacity of the 'open labour market'.

The conceptualisation of migration and migrants in Germany, which has experienced several immigrations encompassing refugees and expellees, 'guest workers', asylum seekers, civil war refugees and ethnic Germans (*Aussiedler*) was determined by two reference frames: a) Germany is not an immigration country (*Einwanderungsland*), and therefore immigrants (*Zuwanderer*) are not automatically seen as immigrants (*Einwanderer*); they can and should become Germans only under restrictive conditions; b) permanent immigration (*Zuwanderung*)¹⁵ and the settlement of migrants refer to problems of social integration, which are the responsibility of the welfare state. Into the 1990s, an ethnically founded citizenship barred access to the naturalisation of migrants. Since then, under certain conditions concerning integration, citizenship has become obtainable. On the other hand, since the Second World War, the positive reference to what constitutes a German was eclipsed and cultural difference was primarily conceptualised as a problem for social integration, as a deficit and hurdle for the required adaptation, particularly in education and the labour market. This perspective remains prevalent until the present day and now also includes ethnic Germans (*Aussiedler*) after their reconceptualisation from formerly cultural Germans to culturally and socially different migrants with typical integration problems. On the other hand, the German welfare state proved to be inclusive in the sense that it effectively provided protection not only for large parts of the migrant workers of the 1960s and 1970s due

to compulsory social insurance, but it also covers the basic needs (food, clothing, accommodation, health) of all individuals residing in its territory via the welfare state concept. To a limited extent, this also applies to asylum seekers. In Germany, the problem conceptualisation of migration and migrants revolves, therefore, mainly around the question of whether immigrants can provide for themselves and whether they receive social benefits legitimately – in other words, whether in the long run they manage their ‘social integration’ successfully. This finds its most recent expression in the fact that probably in no other country in Europe was a ‘national integration plan’ created with a comparable symbolic effort.

Moreover, the management of immigration by the Mediterranean countries in Europe is embedded in their specific state traditions. The Italian case indicates that the political handling of the significant immigration since the late 1980s, rooted in the demands of an EU increasingly organised in regard to migration questions, can only be explained in the context of a growing demand for services of a familistic welfare state faced with the demographically accelerated ageing process of its population and a tradition of the legal rectification of illegal situations, be it in relation to the building code or residence permits. In this way, as in Spain, illegal migration and its legalisation became *de facto* migration policy, against the actual backdrop of an official EU-oriented policy.

Discussions about the way in which states conceptualise problems associated with international migration are usually confined to traditional immigration countries and Europe. A look at worldwide migration (Castles and Miller 2009; Massey et al. 1998; Thränhardt and Hunger 2003) shows quickly, however, that the political handling of international migration is also anchored in the structures of statehood in the respective countries and regions. As the contributions on Nigeria and Malaysia in this volume show, both countries debate ‘social cohesion’, the definition of a constituency, of the people constituting the nation, of its delimitation and the claim and testing of the reach of state sovereignty with regard to migrants, who are partly, even by dint of violence, excluded from rights and benefits and expelled from state territory.¹⁶

Public policy regarding international migration and migrants was and is embedded in international discourses. One can characterise the late nineteenth and the first half of the twentieth century as the era of the prevalence of the nation state. This era is also associated with unquestioned domestic assimilation policies of countries towards their minorities and immigrants as well as related policies, such as the one set forward by the League of Nations, which reacted to the vulnerability of this policy, apparent in forced cultural homogenisation, separatist tendencies and wars, with the redesign of state borders based on the ‘right of self-determination of peoples’ or with the resettlement of ethnic minorities, be it ‘voluntarily’, as in the case of the Greeks and Turks in the Treaty of Lausanne, or coerced,

as in the case of the Allied Potsdam Agreement with regard to the Germans in Eastern Europe.

The period since the Second World War was characterised by a decline of nationalism in Western countries, the dominance of liberalism and the increasing differentiation between law and politics as well as decolonisation in the Third World. This was associated with a relative decoupling of state, nation and culture. Since then, cultural differences are seen as legitimate, cultures are considered equal, and cultural pluralism is now regarded as beneficial. An early source is the UNESCO Declaration on the equality of cultures, which emphasised the right to diversity and its value. This has not necessarily been replaced but, rather, has been accompanied by a 'return of assimilation' (Brubaker 2001) in discourse and political expectations in many countries, which does not necessarily constitute a negation of the UNESCO Declaration but, in different ways in different countries, calls into question the benefits and value of cultural pluralism. The need to clarify the relationship between cultural pluralism and the indispensable conditions for participation in the functional systems of education, the economy, law, health, religion, and the mass media is also brought into focus, such as the tension between human rights, cultural pluralism and relativism, respectively.

International discursive formations impact differently on the political public as well as on policies of individual countries; they are re-articulated against the backdrop of respective national histories. Multiculturalism, concepts of diversity, integration and assimilation denote different things in each case and can therefore not be understood adequately in isolation from their contextual embedding.

3

International migration and its associated problems are, as shown, substantially constituted by the character of policy and the specific structure of states. They form the filter for international migration, which is essentially caused by the mobility in modern society and thereby lend it a specific shape as a problem. The latter is reflected in the ways of conceptualisation in the various strands of national migration research.

Even a cursory comparative glance shows that the outline in the previous section of individual aspects of concepts of international migration as problems in various countries finds its reflection in the main issues of national migration research, which shall be briefly illustrated in the following.

West German migration research formed itself by means of state-constituted migrant groups. At first, it succeeded as research into refugees and expellees, then as research into guest workers, foreigners and ethnic Germans (*Aussiedler*), before it developed into general migration research. At the centre of its research stands the question of social integration, and

the latter, in its different ways of conceptualisation since the 1970s, is evidently geared towards the guiding precepts of the West German welfare state, its guest worker foreigner policy and later policy concerning ethnic Germans as well as, finally, its current immigration and integration policy.

The issues of French migration research revolve around republicanism and related questions: Which consequences do international migration and the settlement of migrants have, especially for the associated expectations and concepts of assimilation, citizenship and *laïcité*; whether immigration is inevitably associated with the growing importance of cultural, ethnic and religious differences; whether their public irrelevance should be maintained or instead be replaced with forms of tiered recognition; and finally, the questions of whether such differences can be empirically recorded and whether their relation to other social dynamics within families, on labour and housing markets, or in the school system ought to be and shall be explored.

In the United Kingdom, 'race relations' are the constitutive reference point for British research on migration until well into the 1990s. The critics of this approach distance themselves by marking this approach as 'racist' (Miles 1994) in a *tu quoque* mode and thus remain performatively tied to the criticised frame of reference in a peculiar way. This constellation, based on the immigrations of the 1950s to 1970s in the context of a disintegrating commonwealth, is being increasingly replaced by more recent research, which essentially follows the objectives of New Labour, highlights the potential and benefits migration brings, and explores 'indicators of integration'.¹⁷

Migration research in the United States is often characterised by the old question of assimilation, starting with Thomas and Znaniecki, Park and Gordon, and ranging from Gans, Portes & Rumbault, to Alba & Nee and Waldinger. It places at its centre the constitutive problem of the United States – how social order and coexistence can be guaranteed on the basis of the coming together of so many different nations/regions (*e pluribus unum*). This continuation finds its plausibility in the huge waves of immigration since the civil rights reforms in the mid-1960s, which currently keeps timely the question of whether the 'melting pot' still works. Noted processes of differentiation are characteristically discussed as 'segmented assimilation'.

In Australia, migration research and its concepts were not only shaped by the multicultural orientation of immigration policy since the 1970s, the latter has also significantly helped to develop this policy – not least because of its close organisational link to politics.

Especially the last example shows that the orientation of different national migration research towards the ways in which different states conceptualised international migration, immigration and settlement as political problems did not hinder the production of solid empirical and theoretical contributions. However, a reflection from a sociology of knowledge

perspective of this conceptually narrow focus and the often organisationally close links between science and politics in the field of migration research is still lacking.

National Paradigms of Migration Research? The Relationship of Politics and Science in Migration Research

The aim of the following considerations is to develop a framework for such a reflection. The contributions of this volume provide material, to some extent, with which to begin such a project in a comparative perspective. Upon closer inspection, the determination of what could constitute national paradigms of migration research creates, conceptually, more difficulties than the charm of this initially attractive project suggests.

A In the previous sections, we have highlighted how deeply migration research is imbued by its embeddedness in the respective nation states. This does not overlook the fact that migration researchers have in turn a significant influence on the shaping of migration policies and related problem conceptualisations in many countries. The permeation of migration research by politics and statehood is therefore not based on a relationship of instruction. The issue is rather the interplay between the two on the basis – usually, at least – of mutual independence. We assume that this independence constitutes their interdependence:¹⁸ Politics cannot produce scientific, i.e. research-legitimated, knowledge and science, vice versa, has no access to political power and collectively binding decision-making,¹⁹ but for central functional conditions – particularly the freedom of science and access to resources – it remains dependent on law and its political enforcement as well as to a significant extent on resources made available politically. This captures the relationship between science and politics in very general terms, yet the issue here is how they are shaped in and impact on the relationship between migration research and politics.

B Migration research does not match the internal differentiation of science into disciplines, and this justifies the assumption that it is research with an essentially interdisciplinary orientation (Brettell and Hollifield 2000; Bommès and Morawska 2005). In the political and academic discourse, interdisciplinarity is, much like internationality, seen as an indicator of quality, but initially, it primarily constitutes a problem. Migration outlines a field that involves many disciplines and calls for their responsibility: sociology, psychology, economics, political science, pedagogy or law, social geography, ethnology and medicine. This characteristic transverse position of migration as a topic repeats itself within the individual disciplines, as can be easily shown with regard to sociology. Here, migration research operates as a reference point for sub-disciplinary specialisation, on the one hand, and accordingly there exists a nationally and internationally

organised sociological migration research.

On the other hand, according to an established textbook, sociological migration research deals with migration as the 'permanent or increasingly permanent move into another society or into another region by an individual or multiple persons' and 'with the causes, course and consequences of migration' (Treibel 1990, 21). It can therefore hardly avoid dealing with almost all fields with which sociology is also concerned in its various sub-disciplines. 'Causes' refer to the initial socio-structural contexts of migration, which require migration sociologists to have substantial knowledge of developmental and migration sociology as well as anthropology, in order to produce scientifically adequate descriptions. The 'consequences' of migration consist in the fact that migrants often appear in all relevant social contexts, i.e. the economy, politics, law, education, health, sports, mass media, or religion of the target region, either individually or as families. Therefore, migration sociologists also have to assume roles as family sociologists, educational sociologists, youth or legal sociologists, labour market researchers, business, industry or organisational sociologists, inequality researchers, conflict sociologists, political scientists or political theorists and so forth.²⁰ This is almost inevitable, as migrants, like all other individuals, occur in society and its differentiated social structures. They become relevant to political, legal, economic, educational, health or religious issues, or as members of organisations. The manner in which they appear here makes them first visible as migrants.

This leads to the problem of generating a framework of reference for research that tends to repeat every specialisation of the discipline and that can therefore determine its identity only in terms of its difference from these specialisations. In a variety of fields, it therefore continually runs the risk of structural amateurism. This constellation recurs for migration research in a similar manner in other disciplines, such as law, political science (Freeman 2005) or linguistics (Maas 2007).

Consequently, migration research does not constitute a discipline, but refers to a multi- and interdisciplinary conglomeration of research which deals with issues of international migration coming from different disciplines. Hitherto, it is unlikely, yet not impossible, that it will evolve into a discipline, if disciplines are understood in a preliminary way as 'forms of institutionalisation of processes of cognitive differentiation' (Stichweh 1979), including the following elements: 1) a nexus of communication between researchers, 2) a body of scientific knowledge coagulated in textbooks, which is codified, accepted and teachable in the discipline, 3) a common set of problems and questions, 4) a common set of research methods and theoretical frameworks, 5) a career structure and modes of socialising and recruiting young scholars.²¹ One can certainly discover elements of an internal differentiation and of the emergence of an (international) migration research field; yet, this issue does not have to find its final answer

here. Especially, at the organisational level, the founding of research institutes and the establishing of research associations occur. Yet, there are hardly any indications for the formation of a discipline. For the international and interdisciplinary research on migration, it can be stated in rather general terms: 'Since there [...] is no theoretical integration of disciplines, this form of cooperation is forced to take place at a low theoretical level' (Luhmann 1990, 642). Instead, migration research primarily gains relevance among the differentiated disciplines. However, due to its transverse position among the disciplines and the resulting danger of structural amateurism in view of the specialisations in various sub-disciplines, as mentioned above, it is even more confronted with the problem of defining its constitutive *problematique*.

C In section I, we argued that the problem of international migration has its foundation in the contradiction of world society (the simultaneous production of migration motives through its institutionalised form of mobilisation and its restraint through the shape of politics) that national migration research finds its respective issues here and that thereby it mirrors, more or less, the ways in which the respective states conceptualise their policy issues. Due to its peculiar intra- and transdisciplinary mismatch and the resulting problem of how to delimit those problems defining research, one has to presume that migration research orients itself towards state conceptualisations of migration for structural reasons, namely due to its free-floating nature – not only because the politically explosive nature of the topic guarantees attention and resources, but also because this way of conceptualising offers a moderator, who serves to hold together the rather indefinite and frayed problem field of migration research with reference to two main views: 'integration' and 'inequality'.

These have, strictly speaking, their foundation in the classical nation state problem of cohesion vs. corrosion (integration vs. disintegration), peace vs. conflict, in modern European terms: social cohesion vs. disintegration. This *problematique* is rooted in the historical way the modern nation state emerged and differentiated itself. The latter links its claim to have the sovereign right to enforce collectively binding decisions within its territory and for people residing there and constituting the state population with the self-description as an entity, the uppermost and controlling body of nationally conceived society. This claim is based on the argument that the nation state is the legitimate expression and bearer of the national will of the community, be it politically or ethnically constituted. From the perspective of the state, functionally differentiated society is a state-delimited context in need of integration, which finds unity and cohesion in the nation, visible despite globalisation in the 'national economy', in the national education system, or in the nationally constituted welfare systems. From the outset, cohesion and corrosion, integration and disintegration of society are rooted in the notion of the state as an entity, as the national bond of

society. With this focus on the state, the claim of the 'rule of the people' permeates the community as the promise, however difficult to keep, to steer society. Against this background, loyalty and domestic peace are signs of the integration of society as a community, whereas disloyalty and conflict, vice versa, are signs of disintegration. From this perspective, states have historically viewed ethnic minorities as well as political opposition groups as potentially disloyal and conflictive – in Germany the Social Democrats were, as is well known, seen as an 'unpatriotic bunch (*vaterlandslose Gesellen*)' (Groh and Brandt 1992). And in Britain the diverging cultures of the emerging proletariat, on the one hand, and the bourgeoisie, on the other hand, caused Benjamin Disraeli in the nineteenth century to talk of 'two nations' before the backdrop of the social upheaval of the industrial revolution, begging the follow-up question of whether this indicates the disintegration of society or casts doubt on its integration.

Cohesion and corrosion, 'integration' and 'inequality' – the central issue of migration research captured in different terms rehearses this old problematique: the problems of differentiation and inequality, and the question of whether and how the poor or the lower classes come to terms with unequal living opportunities; which potential for conflict it entails and to what extent this is relevant for the integration of society? These questions address migrants and the consequences of their settlement, recurrently and especially in Europe, with its development into a world immigration region after the Second World War, their integration perceived as precarious. And the EU reformulates this problem in tandem with the expansion of its competence claims in terms of inclusion/exclusion and social cohesion.

The main precepts 'integration' and 'inequality' of migration research are therefore owed to the modern state, as the birth of 'society' in the modern social sciences has its roots in the spirit of the nation state (Tenbruck 1981; 1992). In a manner similar to hardly any other sub-discipline in the social sciences until the present, migration research breathes the original spirit of sociology and of social science as a science of crisis (Habermas 1981); it presents the problem of political order as the problem of cohesion, 'integration' and the threat of internal disintegration through 'differentiation' and 'inequality', paradigmatically formulated by Durkheim in the late nineteenth century in his question about the possibility of a 'conscience collective' in modern differentiated society.²²

Here, for migration research, the respective terms used are not of importance: in the American context the problem of assimilation concerns the question of how assimilation can be successful and considers cultural and structural assimilation, i.e. the relatively identical socio-structural positioning and the individual and social conditions under which this can succeed, as a prerequisite for the development of unity, whose extent has to be established in each case. In the German context, the same debate revolves primarily around the concepts of integration and inequality. In the Anglo-

Saxon context, racial equality, ascertainable through non-discrimination in labour and housing markets, education, health, law and politics, is meant to allow coexistence on the basis of unity in diversity; similar points apply to the various types of multicultural policy. Certain aspects of policy might favour an orientation towards unity as the demand for adjustment or alignment, instead of granting civil and social equality; in a republican context migrants may be confronted with this demand. On the other hand, their principled otherness, defining the state population by its confines, might lead to their expulsion.

In this perspective, terminologies, the ways of conceptualisation in the different states, and the associated migration research rearticulate the problem of 'migration and integration' in various ways, rooted in the various histories of nation building. This is the exact reason for the various ways of conceptualisation. Yet, on close inspection, the same kinds of problems recur, and research remains tied to its state-specifically articulated problems, even if it deals with very different areas. Whether it deals with families, education, health, work, politics, law, mass media, religion, or language, everything is seen in terms of integration and inequality, successful or failed assimilation, the successful or unsuccessful easing of 'race relations'.

D Does it make sense to talk of 'paradigms of migration research', if they are, as argued here, rather scientific rearticulations of nation state-specific ways to constitute international migration-related problem constellations? To answer this question, we first need to define the meaning, which has until now been left open, of the term 'paradigm'. Aware of the elaborate discussion following the 'paradigmatic' investigation of Thomas Kuhn in *The Structure of Scientific Revolutions* (1970/1976), we generally assume that a paradigm can be recognised by the central distinctions used to determine the subject of scientific research and the accordingly applied theories. The empirical study of science is concerned with the question of how science establishes the very criteria it applies to successful research. In this context, in order to clarify what can be called a paradigm in the strict sense, Kuhn (1970) distinguishes in his postscript between scientific communities²³ and what constitutes a paradigm in the strict sense as a 'model', its productive basic distinctions as starting point and basis for the discovery, differentiation and development of problems. Paradigms describe, therefore, functioning problem/problem-solving constellations, which are unlimited in regard to the number of problems to be discovered yet productive, and at the same time, they allow one to turn them into common forms of describing a problem and solving it (Kuhn 1970, 189).

The emergence of such paradigms requires the differentiation of science. Kuhn speaks of the 'unparalleled insulation of mature scientific communities from the demands of the laity and of everyday life' (164). Scientists aim to cater to the expectations of the scientific system, and their primary

audience consists of scientists. Here, Kuhn sees a significant difference between the 'mature' paradigm-governed natural sciences and the humanities and social sciences in the fact that scientists of these disciplines have to more or less familiarise themselves with the entire history of problems and problem solutions for the area they work in; they also face a wide range of competing paradigms, whose appropriateness they have to evaluate themselves from case to case. This leads to a much lamented paradigm pluralism in these disciplines with the respective scientific communities as 'camps'. This might also be the basis for the tendency of social science, recognised by Kuhn, toward the 'choice of a research problem – e.g., the effects of racial discrimination or the causes of the business cycle – chiefly in terms of the *social importance* of achieving a solution' (Kuhn 1970, 164; emphasis added, M.B.). Yet, this is far from compelling, and the mentioned pluralism does not exclude scientific introversion in these disciplines and their 'insulation [...] from the demands of the laity and of everyday life'. The question is rather, under which conditions these disciplines follow such tendencies, and what their subsequent consequences are.

E The community of researchers on migration may certainly be considered a peculiar example for the case that the choice of research problems is recurrently justified 'chiefly in terms of the *social importance* of achieving a solution'. Migration researchers are also hardly reserved, when it comes to communicating preferred solutions. Their majority advocates the equality of migrants – be it as integration, reduction of barriers to assimilation, inclusion and avoidance of exclusion, incorporation, and so forth – and see this as a condition for the cohesiveness of society, of its integration. Hence, they still stand not only in the tradition of the social sciences as a science of crisis and maintain its original spirit in their close link to the state; they also do not aim for the 'insulation [...] from the demands of the laity and of everyday life', but rather continuously emphasise their respective relevance. This applies to the various booms of migration. In times in which migration attracts less attention, migration research follows its daily business, that is, it delves into the ramifications of migration and integration processes and warns of the possible negative consequences of reduced attention to the overlooked or insufficiently noted effects of failing integration, indicated by social inequality, social deviation, etc.²⁴

However, if migration and integration draw attention, migration research is a sought-after science of crisis, as migration and integration then become synonymous with the politically communicated public perceptions of the crisis of cohesion of a society essentially conceived as a national one (Bade and Bommes 2004). The capability to political action is then demonstrated nationally and at the European level by, among other means, the funding of research – and this despite the fact that sufficient experience already exists: 'The politician who grants research money, founds new universities, establishes institutions can pride herself immediately, without

having to wait, whether and what the results are' (Luhmann 1990, 639).

This leads to a peculiar state of migration research, which is not simply caused, as one can see now, by the fact that it is traditionally rather an applied science, because the term applied science – differently from fundamental research – refers to the relation of the provision of science²⁵ to other non-scientific social fields. It points to the provision of scientifically valid and specifically required knowledge.²⁶ This does however not question the fact that applied science remains embedded in fundamental research, it must not contradict it and does contribute more or less to it.

However, this applies at best to a limited extent to migration research. Instead, one must probably state – pointedly – that migration research is periodically 'taken in' by its subject and 'allows itself to be abused' by it, as due to its proximity to politics, there 'lies in-between' no 'sufficient alienation' with the 'headstrong ability to discriminate' of a genuine scientifically constituted theory (Luhmann 1990, 645). Inversely, this is illustrated by the fact that migration research claims in Euro-technocratic terms its 'policy relevance', in contrast to what constitutes a modern science and that it increases the 'social imposition' of its knowledge and answers political questions all too often: 'This is as it is, make it so' (634). The risk here is reflected in the fact that those using this knowledge turn away due to foreseeable frustration. Thus, the permanent effect of damage to the 'facade of the security of scientific knowledge' (641) increases in the case of the contact of science with other areas of society. This becomes visible in the recent intense public debate in Europe surrounding the question of whether the integration of immigrants has failed and whether migration research has failed to provide the necessary knowledge and, therefore, failed in its role as early warning system.²⁷ Due to its claimed practical relevance, it can hardly refuse this task – and reinforces this point by the repeatedly heightened claim of its policy relevance.

F Should we, therefore, drop the concept of paradigm for migration research and, hence, also the assumption of national paradigms in migration studies? This is not an inevitable consequence; rather, one has to ask what kind of science migration research is. On the one hand, one can certainly talk about a community of migration researchers in the Kuhnian sense, based on the criteria outlined above, and in recent years this applies more and more to the national and also to the international level – remember that this was exactly the starting point for the argument developed here. Furthermore, most migration research scientists are active in organisations of the scientific system, in universities and research institutes. Moreover, a consequence of the previously argued is that one can speak of paradigms of migration studies in the sense that they display integration and inequality as central, nation state-specifically rearticulated distinctions with which the subject of migration research and the theories it applies are delimited and defined. In addition, this paradigm was productive, as can easily be

seen with regard to the scope and breadth of migration and integration research.

The discussion of the peculiarities of migration research and the pointed formulation that migration studies 'allows itself to be abused' by its subject matter, as due to its proximity to politics it develops no 'sufficient alienness' with a 'headstrong ability to discriminate' a genuine scientifically constituted theory, is essentially based on the assertion that migration research is not a case of a differentiated science in the sense introduced. To properly understand this fact, the Kuhnian distinction between mature and immature science is not of much help. Paradigm pluralism and competition do not exclude the differentiation of science, rather the latter requires the former. Therefore, this does not cover the claim that migration research is not a differentiated science.

Rather, we have suggested earlier that migration research solves the structural problem of its disciplinary and transdisciplinary transverse position with reference to the political constitution of the problems of international migration. In this way, it is and remains (from a systematic perspective), thus far a hidden reflexive theory of the political system by producing descriptions of migration studies in response to the self-descriptions of this system and its environment, here migration and its consequences, as its composition and not as a scientific outside description.²⁸ The concepts of migration research are based on an understanding of the political system, which in reference to the latter's self-conception, the hypostasis of its function – to produce collectively binding decisions – the primacy of the 'integration of society' assigns it a kind of overall responsibility for society and, therefore, for the problems caused by international migration.²⁹

This policy-centric concept of society is shared by migration research with everyday accounts, the mass media, protest movements, and with some of the other social sciences, not least political science. There are several reasons for this fact, which needs no further elaboration in our context. However, the difference to political science is revealing: The latter translates the tension between science and reflexive theory of the political system internally in the contrast between normative and descriptive approaches, externally in its difference to political sociology. However, in contrast, migration research turns out to be a quasi-unacknowledged reflexive theory of the political system, resulting from the handling of its disciplinary mismatch and the subsequent scientific exclusion and determination of its problems. The paradigms of migration research are national, as seen, because they constitutively gain their problems from the ways in which its respective reference state conceptualises international migration and its consequences. This similarity is the reason for its diversity, and with regard to these ways of conceptualisation it fleshes out its issues: the problems of integration and inequality in different areas of 'the society' and their need to be governed by politics.

From this vantage point, one can also recognise why the systematic nature of migration research as hidden reflexive theory of the political system does not go away through its internationalisation – a notion which we can only touch upon here at the end. The insight that society can hardly be conceived of as national anymore does not need further detailed reasoning – strictly speaking, international comparative research still mostly denotes the comparison of national ‘societies’. Transnationalism takes the criticism of the notion of society as a national container as its starting point, in order to continue to assume national societies (Bommes 2003b). All this aside, the continuation of migration research as a hidden reflexive theory of the political system seems, above all, to surface where it abandons the (exclusive) reference to the state as the organisational form of the political system. This becomes apparent in two currently important issues: In European migration research, the main themes of ‘integration’ and ‘social cohesion’ remain,³⁰ in the wake of the ‘high-level dialogue’ of the Global Commission, the increasingly important field of research on ‘migration and development’ tries to link problems of migration control with issues of integration, on the one hand, and conditions of a (failed) development policy on the other. Again, problems are here fleshed out in reference to the political system and its conceptualisations, oriented towards policy relevance and practical recommendations, whether they are consequences of the internal freedom of movement within the EU, the handling of illegal immigrants, or migration models as a ‘triple-win’ recommendation.

Due to the outlined reasons, an internationalising migration research should work diligently to ascertain the respective national paradigms, if only to dissolve the preliminary sketched ‘I can’t understand you’ (*Kannitverstan*) situations in international research cooperation. In addition, it would suit it well to reflect its national histories as hidden reflexive theories of the political system, of its nation states, before it starts with enthusiasm to merely repeat old routines in a transformed manner at the international level.

Notes

- 1 One exceptional example is the research funding of the EU. Within the Sixth Framework Programme, the Network of Excellence (IMISCOE) has been funded since 2004 (project period: 5 years). This network comprises over 20 established European research institutes.
- 2 Like in the work of Robert Miles (1993; 1994), who is clearly fascinated with the frame of race relations as he tries to move away from it.
- 3 In the introduction to their monumental work *The Polish Peasant in Europe and America*, Thomas and Znaniecki (1958) criticised this line of thought as an inadequate basis for scientific analysis as early as 1918 (first publication 1918). In principle, they see the migration and integration of Poles as a theoretically interesting case

- for the constitution of social order – but in substantial parts of the book, they fail to follow their own line of thought, i.e. to detach themselves from practical normative issues.
- 4 Following a concept by Norbert Elias (1956) which was taken up by Treibel (1988) for a sociological overview of the *Ausländerforschung* in Germany during the 1970s and 1980s; see also Bommers in this volume.
 - 5 Especially sociology, political science, ethnology, history, geography, linguistics, education and economics. This multi- or interdisciplinary profile of migration research will be discussed in more detail below.
 - 6 This is why geographical mobility within nation states, due to employment, family reunion or education, is socially not perceived as migration, and those involved are normally not treated as migrants.
 - 7 See Castles and Miller (2009); the Global Commission on International Migration (GCIM) Report (<http://www.gcim.org/en/finalreport.html>) can be read as an effort to overcome this basic contradiction by means of temporalisation: arguing that international migration will be to the benefit of all 'in the long run' – being faced however at present with all kinds of 'short term' barriers.
 - 8 Not all states become welfare states, since they are not able to build up the necessary capacity of provision. It is obvious, however, that no state can ignore the demands of its population to care for welfare, and so-called failing states can to a large extent not preserve the loyalty of their population because of their reduced or absent capacity to guarantee security and provision.
 - 9 Current examples are the public association of migration and terrorism, which questioned the loyalty of migrants, on the one hand, and the frequent debates in nearly all European welfare states but also in the US concerning the effects of international migration on the capacity of welfare states in terms of costs and benefits, on the other hand (Bade and Bommers 2004).
 - 10 Universalism of inclusion in modern society means that nobody *should be* excluded from claiming economic, legal or educational provisions, if he or she fulfils the social preconditions for these claims (Luhmann 1989). For example, one can participate in education, if one is perceived as educable; one can participate in the economy, if one finds access to monetary means; one can participate in law, if one knows how to act on behalf of one's rights. At the same time, none of these necessarily imply that inclusion always succeeds empirically – on the contrary, it often fails. Yet the valid institutionalisation of social expectations, like the universalism of inclusion, provides the ground for the perception of this failure as a problem in need of remedy, e.g., by means of social policy.
 - 11 See footnote 9.
 - 12 As an effect of demographic changes, European countries start to realise the extent to which they do rely on the attraction of immigrants. The recent debates on the integration of migrants articulate some of the fears linked with the realisation of the increasingly fictive character of nationally delimited perceptions.
 - 13 Different welfare states therefore make use of those institutions in different ways, i.e. individual freedom on markets (liberty and private welfare: liberal individualistic welfare states); families/communities (reproduction of the communitarian foundations of society: conservative corporatist welfare states); the state (social equality in labour market society; social democratic universalist welfare states). Based on those distinctions, it is possible to categorise welfare states into different types. According to Esping-Andersen (1990), we find three such types, i.e. the liberal, the conservative and the social democratic type of welfare state in Western society. Accordingly, welfare states differ with regard to their extent of de-commodification, i.e. the extent to which income and social security is made dependent on participation in the

labour market; the role and amount of residual spending, i.e. national assistance as a percentage of social spending; their redistributive aims and capacity; their corporatist structure, i.e. the differentiation of social security systems according to different occupational and status groups; the amount of private spending for health and pension systems; their conceptual assumptions about the main provider of welfare, i.e. the market, the family or the state. Along these lines, welfare states vary largely according to their orientation, which can be distinguished as individualistic vs. corporatist vs. universalistic. Examples of the liberal individualistic type are the UK and the USA, for the conservative corporatist type Germany, Austria, Italy and France, and for the social democratic universalistic type the Scandinavian countries, especially Sweden and Denmark (Esping-Andersen 1990; Schmid 2002; Opielka 2004). Many aspects of this modelling have been criticised. Some argue that there is a fourth type in Europe, the Mediterranean type (Ferrera 1998); some question the empirical applicability of the model (Alber 2000). For a discussion, see also Kaufmann (2004). During the last ten or fifteen years, there have also been extensive discussions about the adaptive capacity of these different welfare state types and their ability to cope with new constellations as a consequence of the challenges of globalisation (see Esping-Andersen 1996; 2002; Ganßmann and Haas 1999; Goodin et al. 1999; Alber 2000; Fligstein 2000; Kaufmann 2003; Leibfried and Zürn 2005); on a most general level, the outcome of this discussion is that those welfare states do best which manage to combine access to labour and the provision of welfare, instead of providing welfare as a substitute for labour – a problem mainly for the conservative corporatist type of welfare states. In many countries, the recent shift to so-called activating welfare policies is a reaction to these problems. Integration policies in many countries belong in this context. Typologies of welfare states have been developed in the context of international comparative welfare state research. Certainly, they are to a large extent based on the analyses of leading Western countries; see, however, Esping-Andersen (2002) for more comprehensive comparisons. New immigration countries like Malaysia (an ethnic welfare state), Nigeria (a corrupt state) and Hong Kong (a free market system) do not fit into these schemes.

- 14 Often but misleadingly explicated by the difference between the French and the pre-2000 German concepts of citizenship (see Hagedorn 2001 and Gosewinkel 2003).
- 15 Migrants who enter the country are not automatically perceived as continuous immigrants. So the question of whether they want to remain as immigrants is kept open by the expression *Zuwanderer* whereas the expression *Einwanderer* in German means that the migrant is expected to stay in the country. Choosing the word *Zuwanderungsgesetz* in Germany connotes that migrants are not automatically seen as immigrants.
- 16 The Gulf States are an interesting case, which we can not cover here in detail. Some of these 'pensioner states', which obtain a substantial income from their energy resources, exclude their population from political participation on the basis of providing for them. Associated with this are significant 'modernisation deficits' resulting in an insufficient workforce, at least with regard to the necessary skills for developing an infrastructure. This workforce is increasingly made up of migrants from neighbouring countries (Egyptians, Jordanians, Palestinians, etc.) and since the 1990s from Asia, who are vice versa prepared to do such work under considerable constraints to their private lives in view of the employment opportunities and wages in their home countries.
- 17 Moreover, this also expresses the Europeanisation of research, as efforts in the English context, promoted by the Labour government, are at the same time linked to projects funded by the EU.

- 18 In such general terms, this point also denotes a commonplace in the sociological theory of differentiation since Marx and Durkheim.
- 19 This is the reason why it can complain without any risk that its advice is ignored, as it has neither to bring about the necessary decisions nor to take responsibility for them.
- 20 If one accepts Treibel's definition of the problem constellation, migration research would also urgently require engagement with social theory – this might indeed not be harmful, but would increase the problem of poaching in too many reserves.
- 21 For a historical approach concerning the relation between disciplines and interdisciplinarity, see Swoboda (1979).
- 22 Durkheim (1977); it is easy to recognise that sociology tried from the outset to distance itself from a Marxian perspective, which shares with it the assumption that the cohesion of a society can only be conceived of in a 'classless society', in which asymmetries, unintended inequalities and, hence, integration problems are absent.
- 23 Discernible, for instance, with regard to similar education and career, shared literature, intensity of communication and mutual references in publications, shared standards, conferences, etc.
- 24 It is striking that migration research in different countries maintains its way of looking at problems by tying itself to politically mediated patterns of conceptualising, in significant isolation from the general and special theoretical debate in related disciplines – it operates only in a limited way with an internal orientation. In German-speaking sociology, this can be seen in the fact that the debate about adequate theoretical concepts for the description and explanation of inequality, conducted for more than twenty years in inequality research, and the question of the relation between inequality research and differentiation theory in migration research were kept at a distance – as if migrants were clear cut cases (of inequality), for which these debates are of no significance. This has only started to change in recent years: Bommers (2003a), Weiß (2005) and the latest Sinus study (Sinus Sociovision 2008) demonstrate that this point of view has no reason apart from an established division of labour between nationally oriented inequality research interested in the position of citizens in the social structure and migration research covering the 'rest'.
- 25 In difference to the functional orientation of fundamental research understood as the orientation towards securing the conditions to experience the world in the same manner.
- 26 Regardless of the fact that the usability of knowledge is decided by its users and not its producers (Wingens and Fuchs 1989).
- 27 In the Netherlands, there was a strong denunciation of researchers who were accused of having invented multicultural illusions. The public debate which emerged during 2006/07 in German daily and weekly newspapers about the achievements and failures of migration research, about right and wrong science (cf. Bommers 2006), threw glaring light on the awkward situation of migration research, according to Kuhn (1970). He argues that solutions are only seen as sufficient when they are accepted by many. They 'may not, however, be drawn at random from society as a whole', but they have to come from the scientific community. 'One of the strongest, if still unwritten, rules of scientific life is the prohibition of appeals to heads of state or to the populace at large in matters scientific' (168).
- 28 Outside descriptions are not only produced in science: The economy describes politics, education or the law under its premises and so forth. Every time the respective system is seen with its benefits for the describing system in view, whether, for instance, the educational system produces qualified individuals for the economy, families render children educable, science produces usable knowledge for political

- decisions, etc. Here the relation of the self-description of social systems and outside descriptions by sciences is the topic (cf. in detail Kieserling 2004).
- 29 The role of migration research as reflexive theory (for this term, see Luhmann and Schorr 1988) becomes apparent, once one compares it to disciplines that became responsible for dealing with modern society in the trajectory of the scientific system: political science for politics, economics for the economy, pedagogy for the educational system, theology for religion, etc. In all these cases, the same tension arises between outside and self-description, formulated as the question of the extent to which they are reflexive theories of the respective social system or scientific theories. Reflexive theories take up the differentiated perspectives and plausibilities of practice, presuppose them, and provide them with justifications: in pedagogy, economy, law, or (normative) political science. The described tension becomes apparent when the societal improbability of education, economy, law, or politics can still also become a topic; this can be checked by the fact that scientific contributions practically still match the problems of the functional systems they deal with.
 - 30 Like the name of the EU-funded Network of Excellence 'Immigration, Integration and Social Cohesion in an Integrating Europe' (IMISCOE).

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